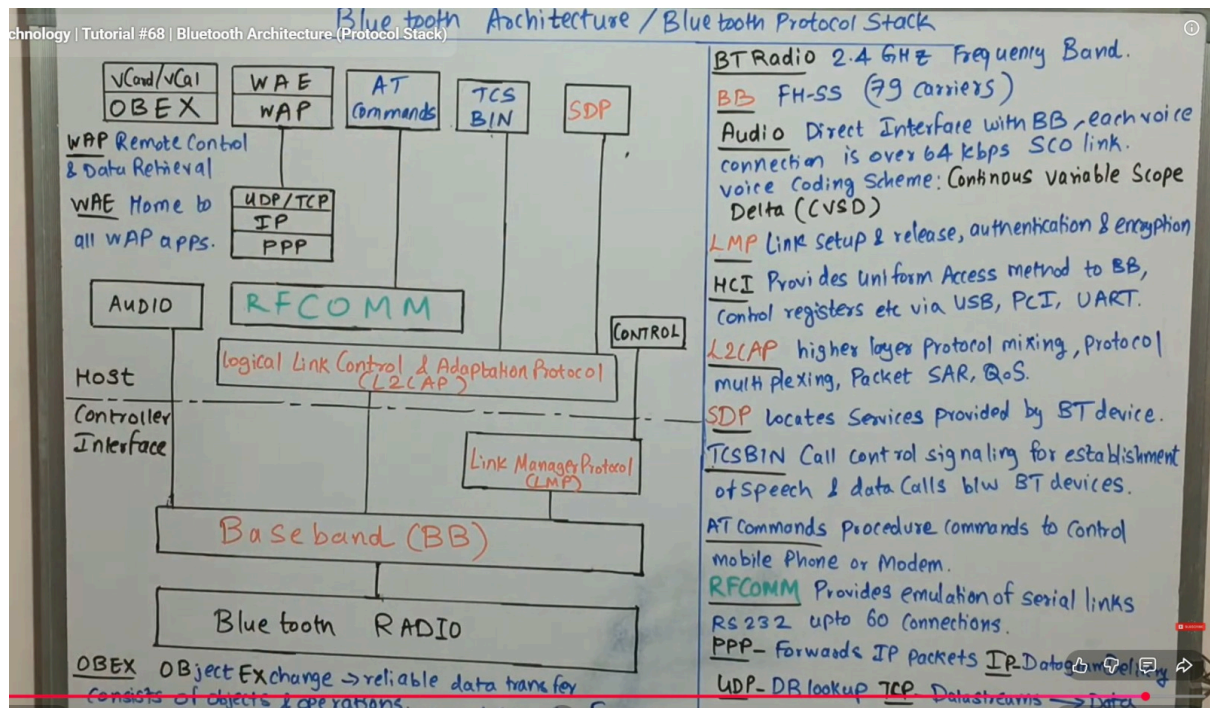




Bluetooth Architecture / Protocol Stack

Introduction

Bluetooth architecture is divided into **layers** that manage communication between devices. It consists of **Controller part** and **Host part**, connected through **HCI (Host Controller Interface)**.

1. Bluetooth Radio Layer

- Operates in **2.4 GHz ISM band**
- Uses **Frequency Hopping Spread Spectrum (FHSS)**
- 79 channels used
- Responsible for **wireless transmission**

◆ 2. Baseband (BB)

- Handles **physical channel and link control**
 - Supports:
 - **SCO (voice link)**
 - **ACL (data link)**
 - Performs **error correction and packet formation**
-

◆ 3. Link Manager Protocol (LMP)

- Responsible for:
 - Link setup and release
 - Authentication
 - Encryption
 - Power control
-

◆ 4. Host Controller Interface (HCI)

- Interface between **host and controller**
 - Provides uniform access via:
 - USB
 - UART
 - PCI
-

◆ 5. L2CAP (Logical Link Control and Adaptation Protocol)

- Multiplexes higher layer protocols
 - Provides:
 - Segmentation and reassembly (SAR)
 - Quality of Service (QoS)
-

◆ 6. RFCOMM

- Emulates **serial port communication (RS-232)**
 - Supports multiple connections
-

◆ 7. SDP (Service Discovery Protocol)

- Used to **discover services** offered by Bluetooth devices
-

◆ 8. TCS (Telephony Control Protocol)

- Used for **call control signalling**
 - Establishes voice/data calls
-

◆ 9. AT Commands

- Used to control:
 - Mobile phone
 - Modem operations
-

◆ 10. OBEX (Object Exchange Protocol)

- Used for **file transfer**
 - Ensures reliable data exchange
-

◆ 11. PPP, TCP/IP, UDP

- Enable **internet communication over Bluetooth**
- PPP → forwards IP packets
- TCP/UDP → transport protocols

◆ 12. Audio Layer

- Directly interfaces with baseband
 - Used for **voice transmission**
-



Quick Summary (Exam Tip)

- Radio + Baseband → Physical communication
 - LMP → Link control & security
 - HCI → Interface
 - L2CAP → Data handling
 - RFCOMM / SDP / OBEX → Applications
-



Frequency Reuse with Clustering

◆ Definition

Frequency reuse is a technique in cellular networks where the **same frequency channels are reused in different cells** to improve spectrum efficiency and increase system capacity.

◆ Basic Concept

- The total coverage area is divided into **small cells**
 - Each cell is assigned a set of **frequencies**
 - The same frequencies are reused in **non-adjacent cells** to avoid interference
-

◆ Clustering Concept

- A group of adjacent cells using **different frequency sets** is called a **cluster**
 - Each cluster uses the **complete set of available frequencies**
 - Clusters are **repeated over the entire network**
-

◆ Cluster Size (N)

Cluster size determines how frequencies are distributed.

$$N = i^2 + ij + j^2$$

Where:

- i, j = integers
- N = number of cells in a cluster



Examples:

- $(i=1, j=1) \rightarrow N = 3$
 - $(i=2, j=1) \rightarrow N = 7$
 - $(i=2, j=2) \rightarrow N = 12$
-

◆ Frequency Reuse Pattern

- Cells using the same frequency are called **co-channel cells**
 - They are separated by a distance to reduce interference
-

◆ Reuse Distance (D)

$$D = \sqrt{3N} \cdot R$$

Where:

- **D** = distance between co-channel cells
 - **R** = cell radius
 - **N** = cluster size
-

◆ Advantages

- Efficient use of limited frequency spectrum
 - Increased network capacity
 - Supports more users
-

◆ Disadvantages

- Co-channel interference
 - Complex frequency planning required
-

Quick Summary (Exam Tip)

- **Cluster** = group of cells with unique frequencies
 - **Frequency reuse** = reuse same frequencies in far cells
 - Larger **N** → **less interference, lower capacity**
 - Smaller **N** → **more capacity, more interference**
-

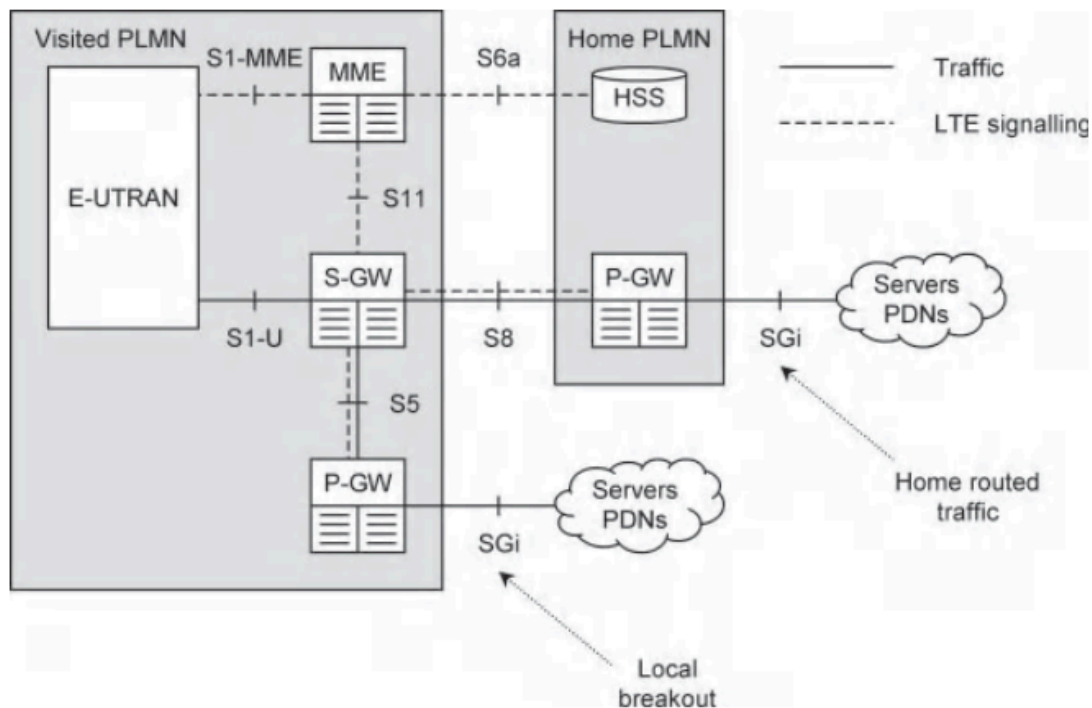


Figure 2.5 Architecture of LTE for a roaming mobile.

Here's a **clear exam-ready answer with diagram + explanation** of LTE architecture components:

LTE Architecture Components

◆ 1. E-UTRAN (Evolved Universal Terrestrial Radio Access Network)

Component: eNodeB (eNB)

- Main base station in LTE
- Connects **user equipment (UE)** to the network
- Handles:
 - Radio communication
 - Scheduling
 - Handover

◆ 2. EPC (Evolved Packet Core)

EPC is the **core network** responsible for data and control.

◆ (a) MME (Mobility Management Entity)

- Controls **signalling and mobility**
 - Functions:
 - Authentication of users
 - Tracking user location
 - Session management
-

◆ (b) S-GW (Serving Gateway)

- Acts as a **data router**
 - Functions:
 - Forwards user data packets
 - Maintains data during handover
 - Connects eNodeB and P-GW
-

◆ (c) P-GW (Packet Data Network Gateway)

- Connects LTE network to **external networks (Internet)**
 - Functions:
 - Allocates IP address
 - Controls data usage and QoS
 - Acts as exit/entry point
-

◆ (d) HSS (Home Subscriber Server)

- Central **database of users**
- Stores:
 - Subscriber details
 - Authentication information

- Service profiles
-

◆ 3. Interfaces in LTE

Interface	Connects	Function
S1-MME	eNodeB ↔ MME	Signalling
S1-U	eNodeB ↔ S-GW	Data transfer
S5/S8	S-GW ↔ P-GW	Data + control
S6a	MME ↔ HSS	Authentication
SGi	P-GW ↔ Internet	External connectivity

◆ 4. Traffic Types

- **User Traffic** → Actual data (internet, calls)
 - **Signalling Traffic** → Control messages
-

◆ 5. Special Concepts (from diagram)

- **Local Breakout** → Data goes directly to internet (faster)
 - **Home Routed Traffic** → Data routed through home network (secure)
-



Quick Summary (Exam Tip)

- **eNodeB** → Radio communication
 - **MME** → Control & authentication
 - **S-GW** → Data routing
 - **P-GW** → Internet connection
 - **HSS** → User database
-



Multiplexing Techniques

◆ Definition

Multiplexing is a technique used to **combine multiple signals into a single communication channel** to improve bandwidth utilization and reduce cost. The reverse process is called **demultiplexing**.

◆ 1. Frequency Division Multiplexing (FDM)

Concept:

- The available bandwidth is divided into **multiple frequency bands**
- Each signal is transmitted **simultaneously on different frequencies**

Features:

- Used for **analog signals**
- Requires **guard bands** to prevent overlap

Advantages:

- Continuous transmission
- No delay between signals

Disadvantages:

- Bandwidth wastage due to guard bands
- Susceptible to noise

Applications:

- Radio broadcasting
 - Cable TV
-

◆ 2. Time Division Multiplexing (TDM)

Concept:

- Each signal is assigned a **specific time slot**
- Signals transmit **one after another in sequence**

Types:

- **Synchronous TDM** → Fixed time slots
- **Asynchronous (Statistical) TDM** → Dynamic slots based on demand

Advantages:

- Efficient bandwidth utilization
- No need for guard bands

Disadvantages:

- Requires synchronization
- Delay may occur

Applications:

- Telephone systems
 - Digital communication
-

◆ 3. Wavelength Division Multiplexing (WDM)

Concept:

- Used in **optical fiber communication**
- Multiple signals are transmitted using **different wavelengths (colors)** of light

Types:

- **CWDM (Coarse WDM)**
- **DWDM (Dense WDM)**

Advantages:

- Very high data transmission rates
- Efficient use of optical fiber

Disadvantages:

- High cost
- Complex technology

Applications:

- Fiber optic communication
 - Internet backbone
-

4. Code Division Multiplexing (CDM / CDMA)

Concept:

- All users share the **same frequency and time**
- Each signal is encoded with a **unique code**

Features:

- Based on **spread spectrum technique**

Advantages:

- High security
- Resistant to interference and noise

Disadvantages:

- Complex system
- Requires strict synchronization

Applications:

- Mobile communication (3G)
 - GPS systems
-

◆ Comparison Table

Technique	Basis	Key Idea	Signal Type
FDM	Frequency	Different frequencies	Analog
TDM	Time	Different time slots	Digital
WDM	Wavelength	Different light wavelengths	Optical
CDM	Code	Unique codes	Digital

🧠 Quick Summary (Exam Trick)

👉 **F → T → W → C = Frequency, Time, Wavelength, Code**

Optimization

◆ Definition

Optimization is the process of **improving the performance, efficiency, or quality** of a system by making the best use of available resources while satisfying given constraints.

◆ Objectives of Optimization

- Maximize performance (speed, throughput)
 - Minimize cost, delay, or energy consumption
 - Efficient utilization of resources
 - Improve Quality of Service (QoS)
-

◆ Types of Optimization

1. Network Optimization

- Improves performance of communication networks
 - Example:
 - Reducing congestion
 - Improving signal strength
 - Load balancing
-

2. Code Optimization

- Improves program efficiency
- Performed by compiler or programmer

Types:

- **Machine-independent optimization** (loop optimization, dead code removal)
- **Machine-dependent optimization** (register allocation)

3. Database Optimization

- Improves query performance
- Example:
 - Indexing
 - Query rewriting
 - Normalization

4. Resource Optimization

- Efficient allocation of:
 - CPU
 - Memory
 - Bandwidth

◆ Optimization Techniques

- **Heuristic methods** → Approximate solutions
- **Linear Programming** → Mathematical approach
- **Greedy algorithms** → Local optimum selection
- **Dynamic Programming** → Optimal substructure

◆ Steps in Optimization

1. Define the problem
2. Identify objective function
3. Identify constraints
4. Apply optimization technique
5. Evaluate results

◆ Advantages

- Improves system efficiency
 - Reduces cost and time
 - Enhances performance
 - Better resource utilization
-

◆ Disadvantages

- Complex process
 - May require high computation
 - Optimal solution not always guaranteed
-



Quick Summary (Exam Tip)

👉 **Optimization = Best solution under constraints**



Wi-Fi Security Protocols

◆ Introduction

Wi-Fi security protocols are used to **protect wireless networks** from unauthorized access, data theft, and attacks. They provide **authentication, encryption, and data integrity**.

◆ 1. WEP (Wired Equivalent Privacy)

Overview:

- First Wi-Fi security protocol (IEEE 802.11)
- Uses **RC4 encryption algorithm**
- Key sizes: **64-bit / 128-bit**

Features:

- Static key (same key for all users)
- Uses Initialization Vector (IV)

Advantages:

- Simple to implement

Disadvantages:

- Very weak security
- Easily hackable due to **IV reuse and weak encryption**

Status:

 **Obsolete (not recommended)**

◆ 2. WPA (Wi-Fi Protected Access)

Overview:

- Introduced as an improvement over WEP
- Uses **TKIP (Temporal Key Integrity Protocol)**

Features:

- Dynamic key generation
- Message Integrity Check (MIC)

Advantages:

- More secure than WEP
- Backward compatible

Disadvantages:

- Still vulnerable to attacks
- Uses RC4 (outdated)

Status:

Deprecated

3. WPA2 (Wi-Fi Protected Access 2)

Overview:

- Based on **IEEE 802.11i standard**
- Uses **AES encryption (Advanced Encryption Standard)**

Features:

- Strong encryption
- Two modes:
 - **Personal (PSK)** → Password-based
 - **Enterprise** → Uses authentication server (RADIUS)

Advantages:

- Highly secure
- Widely used

Disadvantages:

- Vulnerable to:

- Weak passwords
- KRACK attack

 **Status:**

 **Still widely used**

◆ 4. WPA3 (Wi-Fi Protected Access 3)

 **Overview:**

- Latest Wi-Fi security protocol
- Introduced to overcome WPA2 weaknesses

 **Features:**

- Uses **SAE (Simultaneous Authentication of Equals)**
- Stronger encryption and protection

 **Advantages:**

- Better protection against password guessing
- Forward secrecy
- Strong encryption even with weak passwords

 **Disadvantages:**

- Requires modern hardware
- Not supported on older devices

 **Status:**

 **Recommended (latest standard)**

◆ Comparison Table

Protocol	Encryption	Security Level	Status
WEP	RC4	Very Low	Obsolete

WPA	RC4 + TKIP	Medium	Deprecated
WPA2	AES	High	Widely Used
WPA3	SAE + AES	Very High	Latest

◆ Key Concepts

Authentication

- Verifies user identity
- Example: Password, RADIUS server

Encryption

- Protects data from attackers
- Example: AES

Integrity

- Ensures data is not altered
-